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Magdeburg, 31.07.2024

Abstract

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Chapter 1.

Introduction

1.1. Motivation

motivation

1.2. Structure

structure

Chapter 2.

Background

This chapter will give an introduction and overview on different approaches to classify types of emotions with respect to their advantages and disadvantages. Furthermore it will explain the approaches to recognize emotion in the mediums text, video and audio. Based on this common implementation techniques and architectures for Neural Networks are presented.

2.1. Emotion

There is no unambigious definition for the term ‘emotion’. There are many different emotion, with different level of intensity. While asking what an emotion is and where it comes from, William James discussed two different theories about the origin of them. Either there are seperate ares in the cerebrum or else they correspond to motory and sensory processes [1]. Many work in psychology add further aspects to the latter. In order to provide a framework, the following chapters will focus just on the outputted emotion and how to recognize it.

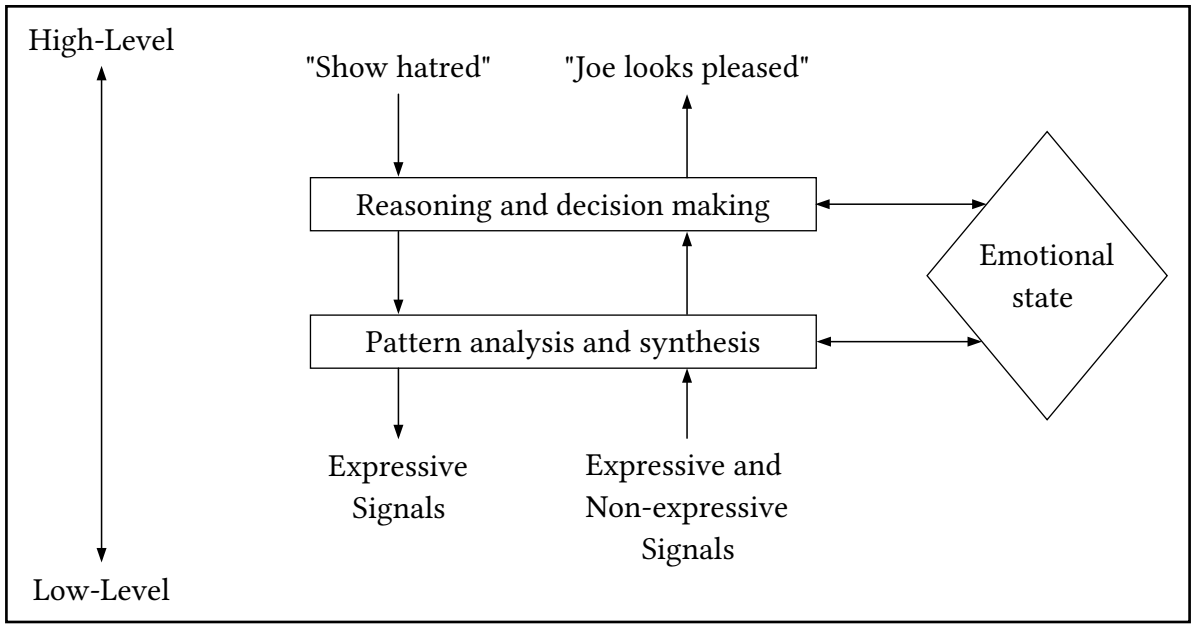


Figure 2.1.: Information flows from both high to low to high in a system that can express, recognize and “have” emotions [2].

As shown in the figure, the motory and senory processes are considered as high-level information. This is defined as the semantic of the situation like the emotion state of the person,

or an instruction to the computer to simulate a expression. The left side of the figure shows the latter. However the right side explains that low-level expressive information, like a facial expression or a pitch change in the voice is needed to get the semantic of the emotional state. In addition there can be non-expressive data as a valid input. It describes the passive influence on a persons state like the weather or the setting of the environment. Most datasets won't cover this type of information.

The mid-level patterns the given input and combines different low-level signals to get a better reasioning for an high-level output. For example a slightly faster speech rate and a tense articulation can be clustered together to get classified as an angered expression.

2.1.1. Emotion Classification

There are different apporaches to classify the semantic high-level features. The most popular classification is the basic-emotion framework by Paul Ekman [3] describing six different emotions: anger, disgust, fear, surprise, sadness and hapiness. This arose from different facial expression, which Ekman categorized to the corresponding emotion.

Over the time different frameworks were built on this foundation to introduce for each basic emotion multiple detailled emotions. A common model is the Plutchik wheel of emotion, which is commonly used to classify emotion in text. It offers eight types of basic emotion: joy, trust, fear, surprise and their opposites sadness, disgust, anger and anticipation [4].

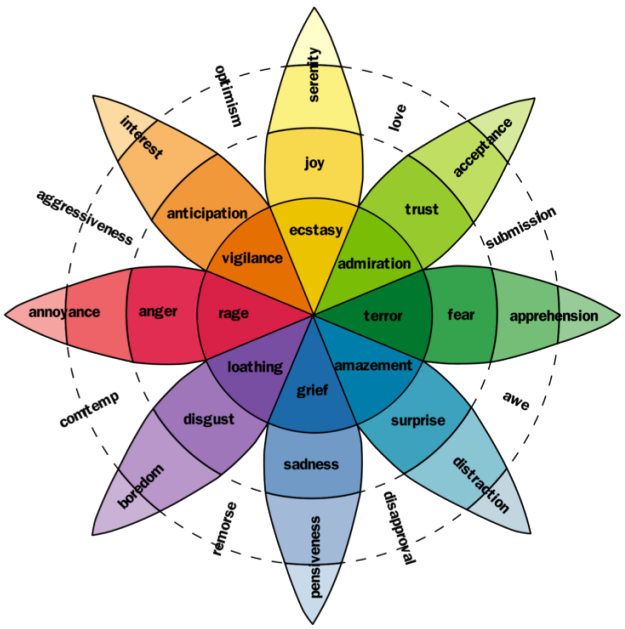


Figure 2.2.: Plutchik Wheel of Emotion [5].

For each emotion there are multiple level of intensity. For example the enhanced level for disgust is loathing, a more moderate level is boredom. In total there are 24 different emotion.

Why can it be better to have more emotion variety?

Although there will be a loss of detail, the content of this thesis will focus on the basic emotion from Paul Ekman. The wheel of emotion from Plutchik is suitable for emotion detection in text but most datasets in facial emotion recognition are focused on Ekmans emotion theory .

Why I wont use the Wheel of Emotion

2.1.2. Emotion in Text

The most common approach to classify emotion from natural language text, is to cluster the content from these sentences. In order to make it possible, two assumptions are needed.

1. There is a function that is able to map words and sentences to their corresponding emotion.

This can be approached by training a deep neural network with a suitable dataset or a clustering algorithm that measures the similarity between words and sentences to match their corresponding emotion label. The function must be surjective, so a token won't be able to be labeled with more than one emotion at the time.

For a relieable result in training, the second assumption is important.

2. Words and sentences do not change their meaning over time.

This is also the flaw from emotion detection in text. For example the sentence "I'm glad to be here"

2.1.3. Emotion in Speech

Emotion / Feature	Fear	Anger	Sadness	Hapiness	Disgust
Speech Rate	much faster	slightly faster	slightly slower	faster or slower	very much slower
Pitch Average	very much higher	very much higher	slightly lower	much higher	very much lower
Pitch Range	much wider	much wider	slightly narrower	much wider	slightly wider
Intensity	normal	higher	lower	higher	lower
Voice Quality	irregular voicing	breathy chest tone	resonant	breathy blaring	grubled chest tone
Pitch Changes	normal	abrupt on stressed syllables	downward inflections	smooth upward inflections	wide downward terminal inflections
Articulation	precise	tense	slurring	normal	normal

Table 2.1.: Features of an audio with correlating emotion [2], [6].

2.1.4. Emotion in Facial Expression

talk about the facs system

2.2. Classification Approaches

Over time many approaches to detect and classify emotion has been developed. There are severeral supervised architectures and unsupervised techniques which represent the current state of the art for emotion detection in text, audio and video.

2.2.1. Classification in Text

Word Embedding and Tokenization

The most important part of all classification approaches is called word embedding. It represents words as real-valued vectors [7]. It uses syntactic but also the semantic meaning of the words to get a useful vector. This technique is commonly used in natural language processing like information retrieval in text.

To generate such an embedding function A, a one-hot vector [8] is needed. It represents every word in a space of words as an different vector. For example the sentence:

The tree is green.

will be first tokenized into a set of words V.

$$V = \{\textit{the}, \textit{tree}, \textit{is}, \textit{green}\}$$

The size of the set $|V| = 4$. As a result a mapping $w \in V$ to a $|V|$-dimensional vector is needed.

$$A : V \to \mathbb{R}^{|V|}$$

$w_i \in V$	$A(w_i)$	$w_i \in V$	$A(w_i)$
the	$\begin{pmatrix}1\\0\\0\\0\end{pmatrix}$	is	$\begin{pmatrix}0\\0\\1\\0\end{pmatrix}$
tree	$\begin{pmatrix}0\\1\\0\\0\end{pmatrix}$	green	$\begin{pmatrix}0\\0\\0\\1\end{pmatrix}$

Table 2.2.: Possible one-hot vector mapping for the sentence “The tree is green.”

To measure the similarity the cosine similarity is often used [8], [9]. Similar words or synonyms should have a smaller angle between each other, than unsimilar words.

$$\text{sim}(w_1, w_2) = \cos(\theta) = \frac{w_1 \cdot w_2}{\|w_1\| \, \|w_2\|}$$

While the one-hot vector embeds it syntactically only, there won’t be any similarity or dissimilarity between the words. Therefore a semantic consideration will be useful.

The Bag-of-Words Model, shortly CBOW is capable to take context of a word as an input to calculate an embedded vector with emphasis on syntax and semantic. It consists of a neural network which mainly constitutes of three layers: the input layer, a hidden layer and the output layer [10].

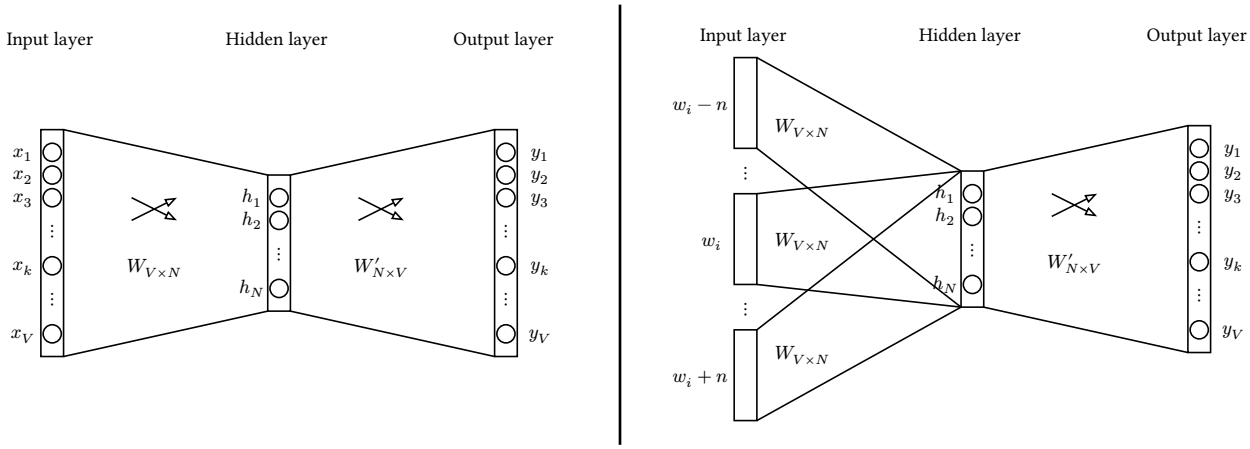


Figure 2.3.: Left: Simple CBOW-architecture for a single word; Right: CBOW-architecture for multiple words. Words have length k and are padded to size V to match the dimension [8].

The architecture shown on the right side of Figure 3 takes one one-hot vector $A(w_i)$ as an input word. To get the context of the inputted word, the words before and after are needed. Therefore an addition to the architecture is necessary.

With unspuervised learning the model on the right of Figure 3 is able to generate a new vector which represents the context of a word. Now, under consideration of the cosine similarity, words with a similar context have a quite smaller angle then without any connection in semantics.

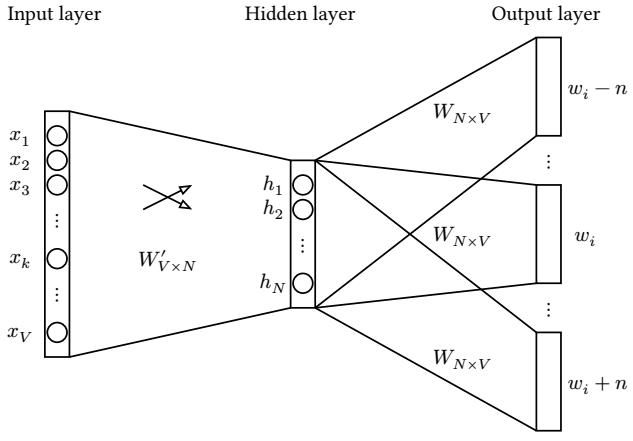


Figure 2.4.: Skip-Gram Model. All words have size V (after padding) [11].

The Skip-Gram Model calculates an embedding in reverse from the idea of the CBOW-Model. As the architecture shows in Figure 4 it tries to calculate the surrounding words with a given target word. Therefore a training like the CBOW with contextual words is needed before it can work like a semantical decoder. Both architectures are commonly used in different pre-trained word embedding networks, like Word2Vec from Google [11], [12].

Fast WordPiece Tokenization is an approach to tokenize sentences and words in an efficient way by splitting words into smaller subwords. It is used in a language understanding transformer model from Google which is called Bert [13].

The basic problem from other tokenization methods like the normal WordPiece Tokenization starts in the vocabulary tokenization in tries. Trie memory is a paradigma which is able to store strings efficiently where each edge of the data structure stores phonemes. Traversing a path consisting of multiple edges results in a word. As a result the structure does not have to store reduntant parts of words [14].

The tokenization has to search for the longest token at a position. Therefore it starts from the shortest substring and iterates over the input text, while trie matching to match the longest prefix which matches a vocabulary token [15]. If the trie matching fails at the next character, the algorithm has to involve backtracking because the longest vocabulary token may be several characters back. This results into a time complexity of $O(nm)$ where m is the maximum vocabulary token length and n the input length.

Fast WordPiece Tokenization introduces so called failure links and pops. Failure pops are a list of longest-matching prefix tokens of a node in the trie, which can be removed in order until a failure link node is reached. The failure node is able to represent the missing suffix. This whole algorithm called LinMaxMatch has a time complexity of only $O(n)$.

Supervised Approaches

With a given word embedding and tokenization supervised learning approaches are able to recognize emotion in text. Therefore an annotated dataset is needed, which has a relieable mapping from sentence or word to the corresponding emotion.

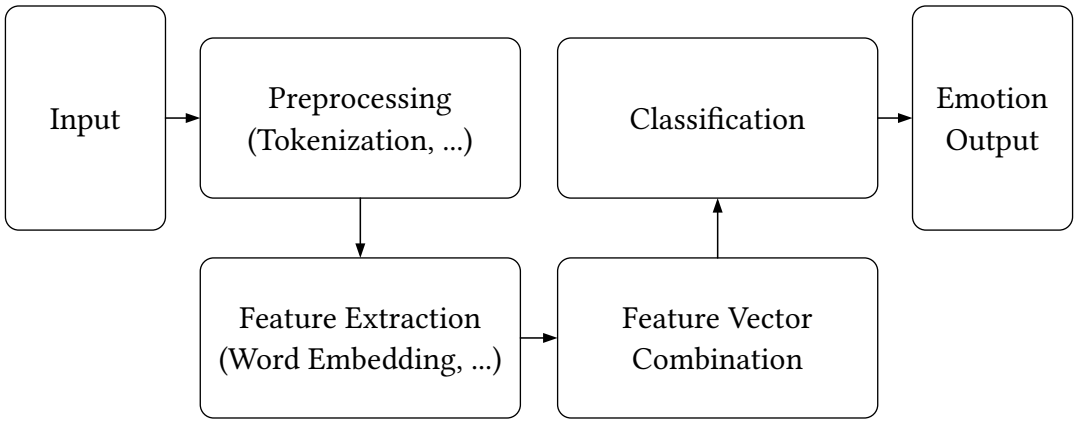


Figure 2.5.: Deep Learning Assisted Semantic Text Analysis

Most models are using the architecture paradigma shown in Figure 5. They mostly differ in the step of combining the feature vectors ant the type of classification because it offers the biggest room to maneuver. A preprocessing and feature extraction is always necessary. Sometimes a WordNet [16] is integrated to get a better overview about synonyms or to paraphrase words.

EmpaTweet [17] uses a dataset out of tweets from the social-media platform Twitter[1] and classifies it to the six emotions from Ekman. In addition they add the emotion label Love.

Unsupervised Approaches

2.2.2. Classification in Audio

2.2.3. Classification in Images and Videos

2.3. Datasets

[1]Currently known as X

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Appendix C.

Appendix

Statement of Authorship

I herewith assure that I wrote the present thesis independently, that the thesis has not been partially or fully submitted as graded academic work and that I have used no other means than the ones indicated. I have indicated all parts of the work in which sources are used according to their wording or to their meaning.

I am aware of the fact that violations of copyright can lead to injunctive relief and claims for damages of the author as well as a penalty by the law enforcement agency.

Magdeburg, July 31, 2024

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Signature